

Algorithmen und Wahrscheinlichkeit

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1 Connectivity of Graphs

Definition 1.1. Let $G = (V, E)$ be a graph, $u, v \in V, u \neq v$. u and v are called **connected** if there is a $u - v$ -path in G .

Definition 1.2. A graph $G = (V, E)$ is called **connected** if $\forall u, v \in V, u \neq v$ a $u - v$ -path in G exists.

Definition 1.3. Let $G = (V, E)$ be a graph, $u, v \in V, u \neq v$. u and v are called **k -connected** if $|V| \geq k + 1$ and

$$\forall X \subseteq V \setminus \{u, v\} \text{ with } |X| < k, u \text{ and } v \text{ are connected in } G[V \setminus X]$$

Definition 1.4. A graph $G = (V, E)$ is called **k -connected** if $|V| > k$ and

$$\forall X \subseteq V \text{ with } |X| < k, G[V \setminus X] \text{ is connected}$$

Definition 1.5. Let $G = (V, E)$ be a graph, $u, v \in V$ and $X \subseteq V \setminus \{u, v\}$. X is called a **$u - v$ -separator** if u and v are in different connected components of $G[V \setminus X]$.

Remark 1.6. More generally one can say that if a Graph G contains a vertex v such that $\deg(v) < k$, then G can not be k -connected.

Theorem 1.7. Menger's Theorem (Vertex Version): Let $G = (V, E)$ be a graph and $u, v \in V$. Every $u - v$ -separator X has size $|X| \geq k$ iff there are k internally vertex-disjoint $u - v$ -paths.

Theorem 1.8. Menger's Theorem (All Vertices Version): A graph G is k -connected iff. $\forall u, v \in V, u \neq v$ there are k internally vertex-disjoint $u - v$ -paths.

Definition 1.9. A graph $G = (V, E)$ is called **k -edge-connected** iff

$$\forall X \subseteq E \text{ with } |X| < k, (V, E \setminus X) \text{ is connected}$$

Theorem 1.10. Menger's Theorem (Edge Version): A graph G is k -edge-connected iff. $\forall u, v \in V, u \neq v$ there are k edge-disjoint $u - v$ -paths.

Remark 1.11. The following always holds:

$$\text{Vertex Connectivity} \leq \text{Edge Connectivity} \leq \text{Minimum Degree } \delta(G)$$

1.1 Specialcase $k = 1$

Definition 1.12. Let $G = (V, E)$ be a connected graph.

- A vertex $v \in V$ is called a **cut vertex** (Artikulationsknoten) iff. $G[V \setminus \{v\}]$ is disconnected.
- An edge $e \in E$ is called a **cut edge** (Brücke) iff. $(V, E \setminus \{e\})$ is disconnected.

Lemma 1.13. If $e = \{x, y\} \in E$ is a cut edge, then $\deg(x) = 1$ or x is a cut vertex (analogously for y).

Definition 1.14. Blocks: We define an equivalence relation $\sim$ on E by:

$$e \sim f \iff e = f \vee \exists \text{ cycle containing } e \text{ and } f$$

The equivalence classes are called **blocks**.

Remark 1.15. Note that two blocks can share at most one vertex, more over this vertex has to be a cut vertex.

Definition 1.16. Block Graph: The block graph of a connected graph G is a bipartite graph $T = (A \cup B, E_T)$ where:

- $A = \{\text{cut vertices of } G\}$
- $B = \{\text{blocks of } G\}$
- Edge $\{a, b\} \in E_T \iff a$ is incident to an edge in block b .

Theorem 1.17. If G is connected, the block graph of G is a tree.

Algorithm 1.18

```

1  #Depth-First Search (DFS) & Low Values
2  #For efficient computation of cut vertices and edges in time  $O(|V| + |E|)$ .
3
4  low[v] := #the smallest DFS number reachable from $v$ by a directed
           path consisting of tree edges and at most one back edge.
5
6  #It holds that:
7  low[v] = min{ dfs[v], min_{(v,w) back edge} dfs[w], min_{(v,w)
           tree edge} low[w] }
8
9  #A vertex v is a cut vertex iff:
10
11  v != root and there exists a child u with low[u] >= dfs[v].
12  v = root and has >= 2 children in the DFS tree.
13
14  A tree edge (v,w) is a bridge iff low[w] >= dfs[v].

```

2 Hamiltonian Cycles and Eulertours

2.1 Eulertours

Definition 2.1. An **Eulertour** is a closed walk in a graph G that contains every edge exactly once.

Theorem 2.2. A connected graph $G = (V, E)$ contains an Eulertour iff the degree of every vertex is even.

Remark 2.3. We can find an Eulertour in time $O(|E|)$. Using an algorithm illustrated by a Runner and a Turtle. The Runner is set loose and traverses the graph until he reaches a vertex he has already visited (we found a cycle). Then the Turtle is set loose and traverses the graph along that path until it reaches a vertex that has unvisited neighbours, from where on the Runner is set loose again (we expand the cycle by finding a new one adjacent to it). This process expands the tour by a cycle at a time until all edges have been traversed.

2.2 Hamiltonian Cycles

Definition 2.4. A **Hamiltonian Cycle** is a cycle in $G = (V, E)$ that contains every vertex exactly once.

Theorem 2.5. Let $m, n \geq 2$. An $n \times m$ grid contains a Hamiltonian cycle iff $n \cdot m$ is even.

Theorem 2.6. A bipartite graph $G = (A \cup B, E)$ with $|A| \neq |B|$ cannot contain a Hamiltonian cycle.

Example 2.7. hamiltonian cycles in Hypercubes Let Q_n be the n -dimensional hypercube. Q_n has 2^n vertices and $n \cdot 2^{n-1}$ edges. Q_n is bipartite and has a Hamiltonian cycle iff $n \geq 2$ therefore we can find a Hamiltonian cycle in Q_n for all $n \geq 2$.

Theorem 2.8. Dirac's Theorem (1952): Every graph $G = (V, E)$ with $|V| \geq 3$ and minimum degree $\delta(G) \geq |V|/2$ contains a Hamiltonian cycle.

Proof. We prove by induction on the number of vertices in a cycle.

1. Lemma: Observe that because $\delta(G) \geq |V|/2$ we have that the neighbourhoods of any two vertices intersect and therefore there is a $u - v$ path for every $u, v \in V$.

2. k -cycle $\implies k + 1$ -path: Let C be a cycle of length $k \leq |V|$. As G is connected there exists some edge $(u, v) \in E$ with $u \in C$ and $v \notin C$. Hence there exists a path of length $k + 1$
3. k -path $\implies k + 1$ -path or k -cycle: Let $P = \{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$ be a path in G . If $N(v_1) \cup N(v_k) \not\subseteq \{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$, then we can extend P to a cycle of length $k + 1$. If $N(v_1) \cup N(v_k) \subseteq \{v_1, \dots, v_k\}$, then we define $N_k^+ := \{v_{i+1} \mid v_i \in N(v_k)\} \subseteq \{v_2, \dots, v_k\}$. By the lemma we know that $N(v_1) \cap N_k^+ \neq \emptyset$ and therefore there exists some $v_j \in N(v_1) \cap N_k^+$. This means that v_j is adjacent to v_1 and v_{j-1} is adjacent to v_k . Hence we can extend P to a cycle of length $k + 1$ by taking the path $v_1, v_{j-1}, v_{j-2}, \dots, v_2, v_k, v_{k-1}, \dots, v_j, v_1$.

Via induction on the length of the longest path in G we can show that for $k = |V|$ there has to be a $k + 1$ path or a k -cycle and as a k cycle is not possible there must exist a k -cycle. $\square$

Algorithm 2.9

```

1 #Dynamic Programming for Hamiltonian Cycle
2 #Time complexity  $O(n^2 * 2^n)$ .
3 #Define  $P[S, x] = 1$  if there is a 1-x path containing exactly the
  vertices in  $S$ .
4
5  $P[S, x] = \max \{ P[S \setminus \{x\}, y] \mid y \in N(x) \text{ intersect } S, y \neq 1 \}$ 

```

Theorem 2.10. *Hamiltonian decision is NP-Complete. (Karp 1972)*

2.3 Travelling Salesman Problem (TSP)

The travelling salesman problem is the problem of finding a Hamiltonian cycle in a complete graph K_n with minimal weight. In other words, the shortest roundtrip/roundtour.

Theorem 2.11. *The travelling salesman problem is NP-Complete.*

Proof. This is easy to prove by reduction from Hamiltonian Cycle. Assume we have a Graph G and want to check if it is Hamiltonian. Now let's extend the graph to be complete and set the weight w_e of every edge $e = (u, v) \in G$ to 0 and the weight of all the newly added edges to 1. Now we can check if the TSP has a solution with weight 0. If it does, then G has a Hamiltonian cycle, otherwise it does not. Therefore TSP has to be NP-Complete as Hamiltonian decision is to. $\square$

2.3.1 Metric TSP

Assume we have a graph G for which the triangle inequality holds, i.e.:

$$w(u, v) \leq w(u, w) + w(w, v) \quad \forall u, v, w \in V$$

Theorem 2.12. *For Metric TSP there is a 2 and even a 1.5 approximation algorithm in polynomial time.*

Algorithm 2.13

```

1  #2-Approximation for Metric TSP
2  #This Hamiltonian cycle has length at most  $2 * |E(T)| = 2 * (|V|-1)$ 
3
4  1. Determine a minimal-spanning tree T
5  2. Double all the edges of T to get an Eulerian multigraph T'
6  3. Go along that Eulertour and skip every vertex that has already
    been visited

```

Theorem 2.14. Christofides Algorithm: *Using MST, Matchings and Eulertours we can find a 1.5 approximation algorithm for Metric TSP in polynomial time.*

Algorithm 2.15

```

1  #Christofides 1.5-Approximation for Metric TSP
2
3  1. Determine a minimal-spanning tree T
4     Observe that  $|E(T)| \leq |E(H)|$  for any Hamiltonian cycle H.
5  2. Find a minimal matching for the odd-degree vertices of T
6     Observe that  $|M| \leq |E(H)|/2$ .
7  3. Determine Eulertour W in T with the edges of M added
8     Observe that  $|W| \leq |E(T)| + |M| \leq |E(H)| + |E(H)|/2 = 1.5 * |E(H)|$ .

```


3 Matchings

Definition 3.1. An edge set $M \subseteq E$ is called a **matching** in $G = (V, E)$ if no vertex is incident to more than one edge from M .

Definition 3.2. A vertex v is **covered** by M if it is incident to an edge in M .

Definition 3.3. A matching M is

- **perfect** if every vertex is covered ($|M| = |V|/2$).
- **maximal** if it cannot be extended by adding edges.
- **maximum** if there is no matching with more edges.

Theorem 3.4. The greedy algorithm leads to a maximal matching M_{greedy} with $|M_{\text{greedy}}| \geq \frac{1}{2} |M_{\text{max}}|$.

Proof. Observe that every edge in M_{max} covers at least one edge of M_{greedy} else we would be able to add it to M_{greedy} . Further more every edge in M_{greedy} covers at most two edges of M_{max} . $\square$

Algorithm 3.5

```
1 M = empty set
2 while E is not empty:
3     choose an arbitrary edge e from E
4     add e to M
5     remove all edges incident to the endpoints of e from E
```

Definition 3.6. An **M -augmenting path** is a path that alternates between edges in M and not in M , starting and ending in uncovered vertices.

Remark 3.7. If we find an M_{greedy} -augmenting path we can switch the edges along that path to increase the size of the matching by 1.

Theorem 3.8. Hall's Marriage Theorem: A bipartite graph $G = (A \cup B, E)$ contains a matching of cardinality $|M| = |A|$ iff:

$$\forall X \subseteq A : |X| \leq |N(X)|$$

Proof.

$\Rightarrow$ This is trivial as if such a matching exists then of course for every subset $X \subseteq A$ we have $|X| \leq |N(X)|$ as we can match every vertex in X with a distinct vertex in $N(X)$.

$\Leftarrow$ We show this using induction over the size of A . The BC is $|A| = 1$ is trivially true. If $\forall X |X| \leq |N(X)|$ holds then we chose a random edge (u, v) and delete all incident edges and show that the theorem still holds. If $\exists |X_0| = |N(X_0)|$ then we show that the graphs $G_1 = (A \setminus X_0 \cup B \setminus N(X_0))$ and $G_2 = (X_0 \cup N(X_0))$ the theorem still holds. $\square$

Theorem 3.9. Frobenius Corollary: *Every k -regular bipartite graph contains a perfect matching.*

Remark 3.10. *It even holds that every k -regular bipartite graph is a union of perfect matchings.*

Theorem 3.11. *In a k - and 2^k -regular bipartite graph we can find a perfect matching in $O(|E|)$ time.*

Theorem 3.12. *In bipartite graphs we can find a perfect matching in time $O(|V||E|)$.*

Remark 3.13. Important matching-algorithms:

- $O(|V|^{\frac{1}{2}}|E|)$ Hopcroft-Karp (bipartite unweighted)
- $O(|E|^{1+O(1)})$ Hopcroft-Karp (bipartite polynomial-weighted)
- $O(|V|^{\frac{1}{2}}|E|)$ Micali-Vazirani (general unweighted)
- $O(|V|^{\frac{1}{2}}|E|)$ Gabow-Tarjan (general polynomial-weighted)
- $O(|V|^{2.373})$ Mucha-Sankowski (general unweighted)

Theorem 3.14. Berge's Theorem (1957): *A matching M is maximum iff there is no M -augmenting path.*

Proof. Else we change the edges along the augmenting path to increase the size of the matching by 1 which contradicts that it was a maximum matching. $\square$

Algorithm 3.15

```

1 #BFS to find augmenting paths in bipartite graphs
2
```

```

3  L(0) = {uncovered vertices in A} (mark all as visited)
4
5  for i: 1 - n:
6      if i odd:
7          L(i) = {unvisited neighbours of L(i-1) via edges in E \ M}
8      else:
9          L(i) = {unvisited partners of L(i-1) via edges in M}
10     Mark L(i) as visited
11
12     if vertex v in L(i) not covered
13         return path to v

```

Algorithm 3.16

```

1  #Hopcroft-Karp Algorithm
2
3  while there exists an augmenting path P:
4      find a maximal set of vertex-disjoint shortest augmenting paths
5      augment M along all these paths

```

4 Coloring

Definition 4.1. A *k-coloring* of $G = (V, E)$ is a mapping $c : V \rightarrow [k]$ such that $c(u) \neq c(v)$ for all $\{u, v\} \in E$.

Definition 4.2. The *chromatic number* $\chi(G)$ is the minimum number of colors.

Definition 4.3. A *stable set* is a set of vertices where no two vertices are adjacent.

Theorem 4.4. $\chi(G) \leq 2 \iff G$ is bipartite.

Theorem 4.5. For $k \geq 3$, the problem "Is $\chi(G) \leq k$?" is NP-complete.

Remark 4.6. For general graphs all ϵ -approximations are NP-hard.

Algorithm 4.7

```
1 #Greedy Coloring
2 #Requires at most maximum degree + 1 colors.
3
4 choose an arbitrary order of vertices v1...vn
5
6 c[v1] = 1
7 for i = 2 to n:
8     c[vi] = min { j in [k] | j != c[vj] for all j < i and (vi, vj)
                  in E }
```

Lemma 4.8. For any graph G with maximum degree $\Delta(G)$, the greedy algorithm yields a coloring with at most $\Delta(G) + 1$ colors.

Proof. Let v be a vertex in G . The greedy algorithm assigns to v the smallest color that is not used by any of its neighbors. Since v has at most $\Delta(G)$ neighbors, there are at most $\Delta(G)$ colors that are used by its neighbors. Therefore, there is always a color available for v in the set $[\Delta(G) + 1]$. $\square$

Lemma 4.9. There is an order of vertices $v_1, \dots, v_n$ such that the greedy algorithm yields a coloring with $\chi(G)$ colors.

Proof. Intuition: Let c be an optimal coloring of G . We can order the vertices such that $c(v_1) \leq c(v_2) \leq \dots \leq c(v_n)$. Therefore each color (stable set) is processed at once and the greedy algorithm assigns the smallest color to each vertex. $\square$

Lemma 4.10. *If for the coloring order we have $|N(v_i) \cap \{v_1, \dots, v_{i-1}\}| \leq k \forall 2 \leq i \leq n$ then the greedy algorithm uses at most $k + 1$ colors.*

Remark 4.11. Heuristik: v_n has the smallest degree, v_{n-1} has the smallest degree after removing v_n , etc.

Remark 4.12. *If every subgraph has a vertex of degree at most k , then the greedy algorithm including the Heuristik yields a coloring with at most $k + 1$ colors.*

Example 4.13. *For trees the greedy algorithm with Heuristik achieves a 2-coloring.*

Lemma 4.14. *If every block of a block-graph can be colored in k colors so can the block-graph itself.*

Proof. Intuition: We can rotate the colors in each block such that the colors of the cut vertices match. $\square$

Theorem 4.15. Brooks' Theorem: *For a connected graph G that is neither a complete graph K_n nor an odd cycle C_{2n+1} we can find a $\Delta(G)$ -coloring in $O(|E|)$ time.*

Algorithm 4.16

```

1  #Algorithm for Brooks' Theorem
2
3  if (maxDeg == 2) color in two colors
4  else if (exists v with deg(v) < maxDeg)
5      color with greedy and Heuristik
6  else if (exists cut vertex)
7      color all blocks with heuristik and color changing
8  else (find v,x,y, with x,y in N(v) and x,y not adjacent)
9      remove x,y and color recursively

```

5 Intro: Probability

Definition 5.1. A **discrete probability space** is a set of elementary events often denoted as

$$\Omega = \{\omega_1, \omega_2, \dots, \omega_n\}$$

Every **elementary event** ω_i has a probability $P[\omega_i] \in [0, 1]$ such that

$$\sum_{\omega_i \in \Omega} P[\omega_i] = 1$$

Remark 5.2. A finite probability space, in which every elementary event has the same probability is called a **Laplace-Space**. Observe that for a Laplace-Space Ω and an arbitrary event E we have:

$$P[E] = \frac{|E|}{|\Omega|}$$

Definition 5.3. An **Event** $E \subseteq \Omega$ is a set of elementary events. The probability of an event is defined as:

$$P[E] = \sum_{\omega_i \in E} P[\omega_i]$$

The complementary event $\bar{E} = \Omega \setminus E$ has probability:

$$P[\bar{E}] = 1 - P[E]$$

Theorem 5.4. For two events A, B in a probability space Ω we have:

- $P[\emptyset] = 0$ and $P[\Omega] = 1$
- $P[A] \in [0, 1]$
- $P[\bar{A}] = 1 - P[A]$
- If $A \subset B$ then $P[A] \leq P[B]$

Theorem 5.5. For events $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ it holds

$$P[A_1 \cup A_2 \cup \dots \cup A_n] \leq \sum_{i=1}^n P[A_i]$$

with equality iff $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ are pairwise disjoint.

Proof. For $i \in \{1, \dots, n\}$ let $B_i = A_i \setminus \bigcup_{j=1}^{i-1} A_j$. Then $P[B_i] \leq P[A_i]$ and for $i \neq j$ we

have $B_i \cap B_j = \emptyset$.

$$P\left[\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i\right] = P\left[\bigcup_{i=1}^n B_i\right] = \sum_{i=1}^n P[B_i] \leq \sum_{i=1}^n P[A_i]$$

□

Theorem 5.6. Inclusion-Exclusion Principle: For events $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ with $n \geq 2$ it holds

$$P\left[\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i\right] = \sum_{i=1}^n (-1)^{i+1} P\left[\bigcap_{j=1}^i A_j\right]$$

Proof. To proof this theorem we look at an arbitrary $\omega \in \bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i$. If ω is in exactly k of the events A_i , then it is counted N_k times where

$$N_k = k - \binom{k}{2} + \binom{k}{3} - \dots + (-1)^{k+1} \binom{k}{k}$$

We show that $N_k = 1$ for all $k \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$. For that we use the binomial theorem:

$$(x - y)^k = \sum_{i=0}^k \binom{k}{i} x^{k-i} (-y)^i$$

Now let $x = 1$ and $y = 1$:

$$(1 - 1)^k = \sum_{i=0}^k \binom{k}{i} (-1)^i = \binom{k}{0} - \binom{k}{1} + \binom{k}{2} - \dots + (-1)^k \binom{k}{k} = 1 - N_k$$

Therefore:

$$N_k = 1 - (1 - 1)^k = 1$$

□

Example 5.7. We shuffle a deck of cards and want to know the probability that any of the cards is at the same place as it was before. Let A_i be the event that the i -th card is at the same place as it was before. Then we want to find

$$P[A_1 \cup A_2 \cup \dots \cup A_{52}]$$

We define A_S as the event that all cards $i \in S \subseteq [n]$ are at the same place as they were before.

$$P[A_S] = \frac{(n - |S|)!}{n!}$$

Using the inclusion-exclusion principle we get

$$\begin{aligned} P\left[\bigcup_{i=1}^n A_i\right] &= \sum_{i=1}^n A_i - \sum_{S \subset [n], |S|=2} A_S + \sum_{S \subset [n], |S|=3} A_S - \dots \\ &= n \frac{(n-1)!}{n!} - \binom{n}{2} \frac{(n-2)!}{n!} + \binom{n}{3} \frac{(n-3)!}{n!} - \dots \\ &= 1 - \frac{1}{2!} + \frac{1}{3!} - \dots + (-1)^{n+1} \frac{1}{n!} \approx 1 - \frac{1}{e} \approx 0.632 \end{aligned}$$

5.1 Conditional Probability

Definition 5.8. Let A and B be events with $P[B] > 0$. The **conditional probability** of A given B is defined as:

$$P[A | B] = \frac{P[A \cap B]}{P[B]}$$

Remark 5.9. Let $A \subseteq \Omega$ be an event, then the following always hold

- $P[A | \Omega] = P[A]$
- $P[A | A] = 1$
- $P[A | \bar{A}] = 0$
- $P[A \cap B] = P[A | B]P[B] = P[B | A]P[A]$

Example 5.10. Assume a family with two children from which we know that one of them is a girl (B). What is the probability that the other child is also a girl (A)?

$$P[A | B] = \frac{P[A \cap B]}{P[B]} = \frac{1/4}{3/4} = \frac{1}{3}$$

Theorem 5.11. Multiplication-Theorem: Let $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ be events. If $P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_{n-1}] > 0$ then it holds:

$$P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_n] = P[A_1] \cdot P[A_2 | A_1] \cdot P[A_3 | A_1 \cap A_2] \dots P[A_n | A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_{n-1}]$$

Proof. We can prove the correctness of this theorem by using the definition of conditional probability:

$$\begin{aligned} & P[A_1] \cdot P[A_2 | A_1] \cdot P[A_3 | A_1 \cap A_2] \dots P[A_n | A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_{n-1}] \\ &= P[A_1] \cdot \frac{P[A_1 \cap A_2]}{P[A_1]} \cdot \frac{P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap A_3]}{P[A_1 \cap A_2]} \dots \frac{P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_n]}{P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_{n-1}]} \\ &= P[A_1 \cap A_2 \cap \dots \cap A_n] \end{aligned}$$

□

Example 5.12. Birthday Problem: What is the probability of two people in a room of m having the same birthday? We find the probability that none of them have the same birthday this is

$$\frac{364}{365} \cdot \frac{363}{365} \dots \frac{365 - m + 1}{365}$$

Theorem 5.13. Theorem of total probability: Let $A_1, \dots, A_n$ be pairwise disjoint

events and let $B \subseteq A_1 \cup \dots \cup A_n$ then it holds:

$$P[B] = \sum_{i=1}^n P[B | A_i]P[A_i]$$

Example 5.14. Goat Problem: Assume three doors of which we know that one hides a sportscar and the other two a goat. You pick one arbitrary door, then one of the other two opens and you see a goat. Should you now switch to the other door that is left or should you stay with the one you are? Let A_1 be the event that you picked the door with the car and A_2 the event that you are in front of the door with a goat. Further let B be the event that you win if you change doors. Now observe

$$Pr[B | A_1] = 0$$

$$Pr[B | A_2] = 1$$

$$Pr[A_1] = 1/3$$

$$Pr[A_2] = 2/3$$

Using the theorem above we get:

$$Pr[B] = Pr[B | A_1]Pr[A_1] + Pr[B | A_2]Pr[A_2] = 0 \cdot 1/3 + 1 \cdot 2/3 = 2/3$$

Theorem 5.15. Bayes' Theorem: Let $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ be pairwise disjoint events and $B \subseteq A_1 \cup A_2 \cup \dots \cup A_n$ with $P[B] > 0$. Then:

$$P[A_i | B] = \frac{P[B | A_i]P[A_i]}{\sum_{j=1}^n P[B | A_j]P[A_j]}$$

Proof. To prove Bayes' theorem we use the theorem of total probability:

$$P[A_i | B] = \frac{P[B \cap A_i]}{P[B]} = \frac{P[B | A_i]P[A_i]}{\sum_{j=1}^n P[B | A_j]P[A_j]}$$

□

Example 5.16. Disease Test: We test a person for a disease that has a probability of $P[A] = 0.01$ to occur. Let A be the event that the tested person has the disease. Further let B be the event that the test was positive. Assume we know the sensitivity of the test $P[B | A] = 0.72$ and the specificity $P[\bar{B} | \bar{A}] = 0.98$. We want to find the probability that a person has the disease under the condition that the test is positive:

$$P[A | B] = \frac{P[B | A]P[A]}{P[B | A]P[A] + P[B | \bar{A}]P[\bar{A}]} = \frac{0.72 \cdot 0.01}{0.72 \cdot 0.01 + 0.02 \cdot 0.99} = \frac{0.0072}{0.027} \approx 0.267$$

Here we see that even if the test is quite accurate, the probability that a person has the disease is still quite low. This is because the probability of the disease is very low. If the probability of the disease was higher, the probability of the test being positive would be higher.

5.2 Independence

Definition 5.17. Two events A and B are **independent** if $P[A \cap B] = P[A]P[B]$ or equivalently $P[A \mid B] = P[A]$.

Definition 5.18. Events $A_1, A_2, \dots, A_n$ are independent if

$$\forall I \subseteq \{1, 2, \dots, n\} \quad P\left[\bigcap_{i \in I} A_i\right] = \prod_{i \in I} P[A_i]$$

Remark 5.19. For infinite families of events it is not enough to check the condition for all finite subsets.

Lemma 5.20. Let $A_1, A_2 \dots A_n$ be events and let $A_i^0 := \bar{A}_i$ and $A_i^1 := A_i$ for $i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$. Then $A_1, A_2 \dots A_n$ are independent iff for all $(s_1, \dots, s_n) \in \{0, 1\}^n$ it holds that:

$$P\left[\bigcap_{i=1}^n A_i^{s_i}\right] = \prod_{i=1}^n P[A_i^{s_i}]$$

Proof. $\Leftarrow$: We proof this direction by induction over the number of events with exponents $s_i = 0$. For the basecase $s_1 = s_2 \dots = 1$ it holds trivially.

$$P[\bar{A}_1 \cap A_2^{s_2} \cap A_3^{s_3} \dots] = P[A_2^{s_2} \cap A_3^{s_3} \dots] - P[A_1 \cap A_2^{s_2} \cap A_3^{s_3} \dots]$$

Using the incution hypothesis we get:

$$= \prod_{i=2}^n P[A_i^{s_i}] - P[A_1] \prod_{i=2}^n P[A_i^{s_i}] = (1 - P[A_1]) \prod_{i=2}^n P[A_i^{s_i}] = P[\bar{A}_1] \prod_{i=2}^n P[A_i^{s_i}]$$

$\Rightarrow$: ...

□

Lemma 5.21. Let A, B and C be independent events then so are $A \cap B$ and C and also $A \cup B$ and C .

6 Random Variables

Definition 6.1. A *random variable* is a map $X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ where Ω is the set of all events of a probability space.

Example 6.2. The event that the random variable X takes a value less than or equal to 5 is denoted as:

$$X \leq 5 := \{\omega \in \Omega \mid X(\omega) \leq 5\}$$

Definition 6.3. The *probability mass function* of a discrete random variable X is defined as:

$$f_X(x) = P(X = x)$$

Definition 6.4. The *distribution function* of a discrete random variable X is defined as:

$$F_X(x) = P(X \leq x)$$

6.1 Expectation

Definition 6.5. Let X be a random variable. The expectation of X is defined as:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] := \sum_{\alpha \in W_X} \alpha P(X = \alpha)$$

as long as the sum is absolutely convergent, else we say the expectation is undefined.

Lemma 6.6. For any random variable X we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X(\omega)P(\omega) = \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} P(X \geq k) - \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} P(X \leq -k)$$

Proof.

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{\alpha \in W_X} \alpha P[X = \alpha] = \sum_{\alpha \in W_X} \alpha \sum_{\omega \in \Omega, X(\omega)=\alpha} P[\omega] = \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X(\omega)P[\omega]$$

□

Theorem 6.7. Let X be a random variable with values in $W_X \subseteq \mathbb{N}_0$. Then:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} P[X \geq k]$$

Proof.

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} kP[X = k] = \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \sum_{j=1}^k P[X = k] = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} \sum_{k=j}^{\infty} P[X = k] = \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} P[X \geq j]$$

□

Example 6.8. We throw a coin and we know $P[\text{head}] = p$. We want to know $\mathbb{E}[X]$ with $X := \text{number of throws until we get head}$. Using the above theorem we get:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} P[X \geq k] = \sum_{k=1}^{\infty} (1-p)^{k-1} = \frac{1}{1-(1-p)} = \frac{1}{p}$$

Definition 6.9. For an event $E \subseteq \Omega$ the corresponding indicator-variable X_E is defined as:

$$X_E(\omega) := \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \omega \in E \\ 0 & \text{if } \omega \notin E \end{cases}$$

Remark 6.10. For an indicator variable X_E we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X_E] = P[E]$$

Theorem 6.11. The linearity of expectation says that for random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ and $a_1, \dots, a_n, b \in \mathbb{R}$ we have:

$$X := \sum_{i=1}^n a_i X_i + b$$

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \mathbb{E}[X_i] + b$$

Remark 6.12. We can intuitively describe this as "the expectation of a sum is the sum of the expectations".

Proof.

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X(\omega)P[\omega] = \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} (a_1 X_1(\omega) + \dots + a_n X_n(\omega))P[\omega]$$

$$= a_1 \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X_1(\omega)P[\omega] + \cdots + a_n \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X_n(\omega)P[\omega] = a_1 \mathbb{E}[X_1] + \cdots + a_n \mathbb{E}[X_n]$$

□

Example 6.13. We throw a coin m times. Let $X :=$ number of partial sequences with threetimes heads. What is the expectation of X ?

$$X = X_1 + X_2 + \cdots + X_{m-2}$$

where X_i is the indicator variable for the event that the i -th partial sequence is three heads.

$$\mathbb{E}[X_i] = \frac{1}{8}$$

By the linearity of the expectation we get:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{i=1}^{m-2} \mathbb{E}[X_i] = \frac{m-2}{8}$$

Remark 6.14. Recall Stable sets in a graph is a set of vertices that are not adjacent to each other. We will now use a randomized algorithm to determin a maximal stable set.

Algorithm 6.15

```

1 S[v] = 1/0 with probability p
2 for all u,v in E:
3     if S[u] = 1 and S[v] = 1:
4         S[v] = 0
5 return S

```

this results in a stable set but what is the expected size of S ?

Theorem 6.16. The algorithm produces a stable set of expected size at least $n * P - m * P^2$

Proof. Let X be the random variable for the size of the stable set S after the first step. Further let Y be the random variable for the amount of edges we looked at in step 2. Observe

$$|S| \geq X - Y$$

By the linearity of expectation we get:

$$\mathbb{E}[|S|] \geq \mathbb{E}[X] - \mathbb{E}[Y]$$

We know that $\mathbb{E}[X] = nP$. Further we know that $\mathbb{E}[Y] = mP^2$. Thus we get:

$$\mathbb{E}[|S|] \geq nP - mP^2$$

□

6.2 Variance

Definition 6.17. For a random variable X with $\mathbb{E}[X] = \mu$ the variance is defined as:

$$\text{Var}[X] := \mathbb{E}[(X - \mu)^2]$$

The standard deviation of X is defined as $\sigma := \sqrt{\text{Var}[X]}$.

Example 6.18. Let $P[X = -10^{10}] = 1/2$ and $P[X = 10^{10}] = 1/2$. Then $\mathbb{E}[X] = 0$ and $\text{Var}[X] = 10^{20}$ and $\sigma = 10^{10}$.

Theorem 6.19. For a random variable X we have $\text{Var}[X] = \mathbb{E}[X^2] - \mathbb{E}[X]^2$

Proof.

$$\text{Var}[X] = \mathbb{E}[(X - \mu)^2] = \mathbb{E}[X^2 - 2\mu X + \mu^2] = \mathbb{E}[X^2] - 2\mu\mathbb{E}[X] + \mu^2 = \mathbb{E}[X^2] - \mathbb{E}[X]^2$$

□

Lemma 6.20. For a random variable X and $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$ we have $\text{Var}[aX + b] = a^2\text{Var}[X]$

Proof. 1. $\text{Var}[X + b] = \mathbb{E}[(X + b - \mathbb{E}[X + b])^2] = \mathbb{E}[(X + b - (\mathbb{E}[X] + b))^2] = \mathbb{E}[(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2] = \text{Var}[X]$

2. $\text{Var}[aX] = \mathbb{E}[(aX - \mathbb{E}[aX])^2] = \mathbb{E}[(aX - a\mathbb{E}[X])^2] = \mathbb{E}[a^2(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2] = a^2\mathbb{E}[(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2] = a^2\text{Var}[X]$

□

Definition 6.21. For a random variable X we call $\mathbb{E}[X^k]$ the k -th moment of X and $\mathbb{E}[(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^k]$ the k -th central moment of X .

Remark 6.22. Observe that the first moment is the expectation itself. Further observe that the second central moment is the variance.

6.3 Multiple Random Variables

Example 6.23. Throw a coin and a dice. Let X be the outcome of the coin and Y be the outcome of the dice. What is the expectation of $X + Y$?

Definition 6.24. Random variables $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ are called independent iff for all

$a_1, \dots, a_n \in W_{X_1} \times \dots \times W_{X_n}$ we have:

$$P[X_1 = a_1, \dots, X_n = a_n] = P[X_1 = a_1] \dots P[X_n = a_n]$$

Lemma 6.25. *Observe that events $A_1, \dots, A_n$ are independent iff their indicator variables $X_{A_1}, \dots, X_{A_n}$ are independent.*

Proof. Note that the event " $I_{A_j} = \alpha_j$ " is equivalent to the event " A_j " if $\alpha_j = 1$ and to the event $\bar{A}_j$ if $\alpha_j = 0$. Same for $A_j^{\alpha_j}$. If now $A_1, \dots, A_n$ are independent then for all $\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_n \in \{0, 1\}$ we have:

$$P[I_{A_1} = \alpha_1, \dots, I_{A_n} = \alpha_n] = P[I_{A_1} = \alpha_1] \dots P[I_{A_n} = \alpha_n]$$

Using the above note we get:

$$P[A_1^{\alpha_1} \cap \dots \cap A_n^{\alpha_n}] = P[A_1^{\alpha_1}] \dots P[A_n^{\alpha_n}]$$

□

Lemma 6.26. *Let $X_1, \dots, X_n$ be independent random variables and $S_1, \dots, S_n \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ be arbitrary sets then:*

$$P[X_1 \in S_1, \dots, X_n \in S_n] = P[X_1 \in S_1] \dots P[X_n \in S_n]$$

(Further this implies that for $X_1, \dots, X_n$ independent random variables and $I \subseteq \{1, \dots, n\}$ we have $(X_i)_{i \in I}$ are independent.)

Proof.

$$P[X_1 \in S_1, \dots, X_n \in S_n] = \sum_{\alpha_1 \in S_1} \dots \sum_{\alpha_n \in S_n} P[X_1 = \alpha_1, \dots, X_n = \alpha_n]$$

by independence of X_i we get:

$$\begin{aligned} &= \sum_{\alpha_1 \in S_1} \dots \sum_{\alpha_n \in S_n} P[X_1 = \alpha_1] \dots P[X_n = \alpha_n] \\ &= \left(\sum_{\alpha_1 \in S_1} P[X_1 = \alpha_1] \right) \dots \left(\sum_{\alpha_n \in S_n} P[X_n = \alpha_n] \right) = P[X_1 \in S_1] \dots P[X_n \in S_n] \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 6.27. *Let $f_1, \dots, f_n : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be functions in $\mathbb{R}$ and $X_1, \dots, X_n$ be independent random variables. Then $f_1(X_1), \dots, f_n(X_n)$ are independent too.*

Proof. Let $S_i = \{\beta \mid f_i(\beta) = \alpha_i\}$. Then we have:

$$P[f_1(X_1) = \alpha_1, \dots, f_n(X_n) = \alpha_n] = P[X_1 \in S_1, \dots, X_n \in S_n]$$

by the previous lemma we get:

$$= P[X_1 \in S_1] \dots P[X_n \in S_n] = P[f_1(X_1) = \alpha_1] \dots P[f_n(X_n) = \alpha_n]$$

□

6.4 Combined Random Variables

Theorem 6.28. For two independent random variable X, Y and $Z = X + Y$ we have:

$$f_Z(\alpha) = \sum_{\beta \in W_X} f_X(\beta) f_Y(\alpha - \beta)$$

Remark 6.29. This can intuitively be seen by looking at every possibility for $X = \beta$: for $X + Y = \alpha$ to hold we need $Y = \alpha - \beta$. Since X and Y are independent we can multiply their probabilities and sum that over all β

Theorem 6.30. For random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X_1 + \dots + X_n] = \mathbb{E}[X_1] + \dots + \mathbb{E}[X_n]$$

Remark 6.31. Calculation Rules for combined random variables

1. $\mathbb{E}[X + Y] = \mathbb{E}[X] + \mathbb{E}[Y]$
2. $\mathbb{E}[XY] = \mathbb{E}[X]\mathbb{E}[Y]$ if X, Y are independent
3. $\text{Var}[X + Y] = \text{Var}[X] + \text{Var}[Y]$ if X, Y are independent

Theorem 6.32. For independent random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X_1 \dots X_n] = \mathbb{E}[X_1] \dots \mathbb{E}[X_n]$$

$$\text{Var}[X_1 + \dots + X_n] = \text{Var}[X_1] + \dots + \text{Var}[X_n]$$

Proof. We prove for $n = 2$ general case can be proved inductively.

$$\mathbb{E}[(X + Y)^2] = \mathbb{E}[X^2 + 2XY + Y^2] = \mathbb{E}[X^2] + 2\mathbb{E}[XY] + \mathbb{E}[Y^2]$$

$$(\mathbb{E}[X + Y])^2 = (\mathbb{E}[X] + \mathbb{E}[Y])^2 = \mathbb{E}[X]^2 + 2\mathbb{E}[X]\mathbb{E}[Y] + \mathbb{E}[Y]^2$$

By subtracting both equations we get:

$$\mathbb{E}[(X + Y)^2] - (\mathbb{E}[X + Y])^2 = \mathbb{E}[X^2] - \mathbb{E}[X]^2 + \mathbb{E}[Y^2] - \mathbb{E}[Y]^2$$

Which is equivalent to $\text{Var}[X + Y] = \text{Var}[X] + \text{Var}[Y]$. □

Important 6.33. Note that $\text{Var}[X \cdot Y] = \text{Var}[X] \cdot \text{Var}[Y]$ does not hold in general.

Theorem 6.34. Let X be a random variable. For pairwise disjoint events $A_1, \dots, A_n$ with $A_1 \cup \dots \cup A_n = \Omega$ and $P[A_i] > 0 \forall i$ we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \sum_{i=1}^n \mathbb{E}[X | A_i] P[A_i]$$

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E}[X] &= \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} P[X = \omega] \omega = \sum_{i=1}^n \omega \sum_{\omega \in A_i} P[X = \omega | A_i] P[A_i] \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^n A_i \sum_{\omega \in W_X} \omega P[X = \omega | A_i] = \sum_{i=1}^n \mathbb{E}[X | A_i] P[A_i] \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 6.35. The waldsche identity Let N and X be independent random variables further let

$$Z := \sum_{i=1}^N X_i$$

where X_i are independent copies of X then:

$$\mathbb{E}[Z] = \mathbb{E}[N] \mathbb{E}[X]$$

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E}[Z] &= \sum_{k=1}^n \mathbb{E}[Z | N = k] P[N = k] = \sum_{k=1}^n \mathbb{E}[X_1 + \dots + X_k] P[N = k] \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^n k \mathbb{E}[X] P[N = k] = \mathbb{E}[X] \sum_{k=1}^n k P[N = k] = \mathbb{E}[X] \mathbb{E}[N] \end{aligned}$$

□

Example 6.36. Throw a dice where N is the face of the dice we get. Afterwards throw a coin N -times and let Z be the number of heads. What is the expectation of Z ?

$$\mathbb{E}[Z] = \sum_{k=1}^6 P[N = k] \mathbb{E}[Z | N = k] = \sum_{k=1}^6 \frac{1}{6} \frac{k}{2} = \frac{1}{12} \sum_{k=1}^6 k = \frac{1}{12} \frac{6 \cdot 7}{2} = \frac{7}{4}$$

Example 6.37. Throw a coin until we get heads. Let N be the number of throws. Then throw a coin N -times and let Z be the number of heads. What is the expectation of Z ?

$$\mathbb{E}[N] = 2 (\text{geometric distribution } p = 1/2)$$

$$Z = \sum_{i=1}^N X_i \quad \text{where } X_i \text{ are bernulli distributed with } p = 1/2 \text{ hence } \mathbb{E}[X] = 1/2$$

$$\mathbb{E}[Z] = \mathbb{E}[N] \mathbb{E}[X] = 2 \cdot \frac{1}{2} = 1$$

Remark 6.38. *The Waldsche identity can be used to analyse the expected runtime of randomized algorithms. Where N is the number of calls of the subroutine and X the runtime of a single call. We can calculate the total expected runtime using Z .*

7 Distributions

Definition 7.1. Let X be a random variable with values in $\{0, 1\}$ and density

$$P[X = 1] = p \quad \text{and} \quad P[X = 0] = 1 - p$$

Then X follows a **Bernoulli distribution** with parameter p , denoted as $X \sim \text{Bernoulli}(p)$.

Example 7.2. Throwing a coin, indicator variable for heads.

Remark 7.3. Observe that for a bernoulli-distribution we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = p \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Var}[X] = p(1 - p)$$

Definition 7.4. Let X be a random variable with values in $\{0, 1, \dots, n\}$ and density

$$P[X = k] = \binom{n}{k} p^k (1 - p)^{n-k}$$

Then X follows a **Binomial distribution** with parameters n and p , denoted as $X \sim \text{Bin}(n, p)$.

Example 7.5. Number of heads after throwing a coin n times.

Remark 7.6. Observe that for a binomial-distribution we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = np \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Var}[X] = np(1 - p)$$

Definition 7.7. Let X be a random variable with density

$$P[X = k] = \frac{e^{-\lambda} \lambda^k}{k!}$$

Then X follows a **Poisson distribution** with parameter λ , denoted as $X \sim \text{Po}(\lambda)$.

Remark 7.8. Observe that for a poisson-distribution we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \lambda \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Var}[X] = \lambda$$

Remark 7.9. This is often used to model events that do not happen often. For

example the number of emails you get in a day. (λ would be the average num of emails you get a day).

Definition 7.10. Let X be a random variable with density

$$P[X = k] = p(1 - p)^{k-1}$$

Then X follows a **Geometric distribution** with parameter p , denoted as $X \sim \text{Geo}(p)$.

Example 7.11. Assume we throw a coin with $P[\text{head}] = p$ until we get n times heads. Let X be the number of throws until we get n times heads.

$$P[X = k] = \binom{k-1}{n-1} p^n (1-p)^{k-n}$$

Remark 7.12. Observe that for a geometric-distribution we have:

$$\mathbb{E}[X] = \frac{1}{p} \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Var}[X] = \frac{1-p}{p^2}$$

Definition 7.13. For $n \geq 2$ a random variable X with density

$$P[X = k] = \binom{k-1}{n-1} p^n (1-p)^{k-n}$$

is called **negative binomial distributed** with order n .

Example 7.14. There are n different types of collectible cards. In every round we uniformly get one of them. Let X be the number of rounds until we have all n types of cards. What is $\mathbb{E}[X]$?

8 Bounding Probability

Theorem 8.1. Markov's Inequality: Let X be a **non-negative** random variable. For any $t \geq 0$:

$$P[X \geq t] \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[X]}{t}$$

or equivalently:

$$P[X \geq t\mathbb{E}[X]] \leq \frac{1}{t}$$

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E}[X] &= \sum_{\alpha \in W_X} \alpha P[X = \alpha] = \sum_{\alpha \leq t} \alpha P[X = \alpha] + \sum_{\alpha > t} \alpha P[X = \alpha] \\ &\geq \sum_{\alpha > t} \alpha P[X = \alpha] > \sum_{\alpha > t} t P[X = \alpha] = t P[X > t] \\ &\implies P[X > t] < \frac{\mathbb{E}[X]}{t} \end{aligned}$$

□

Theorem 8.2. Chebyshev's Inequality: Let X be a random variable. For any $t \geq 0$:

$$P[|X - \mathbb{E}[X]| \geq t] \leq \frac{\text{Var}[X]}{t^2}$$

Proof. We want to show $P[|X - \mathbb{E}[X]| \geq t] \leq \frac{\text{Var}[X]}{t^2}$. Let $Y = (X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2$. By Markov's inequality:

$$\begin{aligned} P[Y \geq t^2] &\leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[Y]}{t^2} \implies P[(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2 \geq t^2] \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[(X - \mathbb{E}[X])^2]}{t^2} \\ &\implies P[|X - \mathbb{E}[X]| \geq t] \leq \frac{\text{Var}[X]}{t^2} \end{aligned}$$

□

Example 8.3. Let there be n different collectable items. We buy items X times until we have a full set. We have already shown that $\mathbb{E}[X] = nH_n$. Now what is the variance of X ? We know:

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^n X_i \text{ independent, geometric distributed with } p_i = \frac{n-i+1}{n}$$

Hence

$$\text{Var}[X_i] = \frac{1-p_i}{p_i^2} \leq \frac{1}{p_i^2} = \frac{n^2}{(n-i+1)^2}$$

Further we show

$$\text{Var}[X] = \sum_{i=1}^n \text{Var}[X_i] \leq \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{n^2}{(n-i+1)^2} = n^2 \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{i^2} \leq n^2 \frac{\pi^2}{6}$$

Using Chebyshev's inequality we can bound the probability of X being far from its mean. Let $t = n\sqrt{\ln n}$:

$$P[|X - \mathbb{E}[X]| \geq n\sqrt{\ln n}] \leq \frac{\text{Var}[X]}{t^2} \leq \frac{n^2 \frac{\pi^2}{6}}{n^2 \ln n} = \frac{\pi^2}{6 \ln n}$$

Example 8.4. Special case Binomial distribution: Let $X \sim \text{Bin}(n, 1/2)$. Then $\mathbb{E}[X] = n/2$ and $\text{Var}[X] = n/4$. Using Markov's inequality:

$$P[X \geq n] \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[X]}{n} = \frac{n/2}{n} = 1/2$$

Using Chebyshev's inequality:

$$P[X \geq n] = P[|X - \mathbb{E}[X]| \geq n/2] \leq \frac{\text{Var}[X]}{(n/2)^2} = \frac{n/4}{n^2/4} = 1/n$$

8.1 Chernoff Bounds

Remark 8.5. Chernoff Bounds can be used for binomial distribution $X \sim \text{Bin}(n, p)$.

Theorem 8.6. Let $X_1, \dots, X_n$ be independent Bernoulli random variables with $P[X_i = 1] = p_i$. Let $X = \sum_{i=1}^n X_i$.

$$P[X \geq (1 + \delta)\mathbb{E}[X]] \leq e^{-\frac{1}{3}\delta^2\mathbb{E}[X]} \quad \forall 0 \leq \delta \leq 1$$

$$P[X \leq (1 - \delta)\mathbb{E}[X]] \leq e^{-\frac{1}{2}\delta^2\mathbb{E}[X]} \quad \forall 0 \leq \delta \leq 1$$

$$P[X \geq t] \leq 2^{-t} \quad \forall t \geq 2e\mathbb{E}[X]$$

Proof. We prove the third inequality. We use Markov's inequality on $Y = 4^X$. We have

$$X \geq t \iff 4^X \geq 4^t$$

Therefore it holds that

$$P[X \geq t] = P[4^X \geq 4^t] \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[4^X]}{4^t}$$

Now what is $\mathbb{E}[4^X]$? Observe that as $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ are independent, $4^{X_1}, 4^{X_2}, \dots, 4^{X_n}$ are also independent. Hence

$$\mathbb{E}[4^X] = \mathbb{E}[4^{\sum X_i}] = \mathbb{E}[\prod_{i=1}^n 4^{X_i}] = \prod_{i=1}^n \mathbb{E}[4^{X_i}]$$

Further

$$\mathbb{E}[4^{X_i}] = \sum_{x=0}^n 4^x P[X_i = x] = (1 - p_i)4^0 + p_i 4^1 = 1 + 3p_i \leq e^{3p_i} \leq 2^t$$

$$\implies \mathbb{E}[4^X] \leq \prod_{i=1}^n e^{3p_i} = e^{3\sum p_i} = e^{3\mathbb{E}[X]}$$

$$\implies P[X \geq t] \leq \frac{\mathbb{E}[4^X]}{4^t} \leq \frac{2^t}{4^t} = \frac{1}{2^t}$$

□

Remark 8.7. To prove the other bounds we use the same technique on $Y = (1 + \delta)^X$ and $Y = (1 - \delta)^X$.

8.2 Target Shooting

Given finite sets S, U with $S \subseteq U$ we want to know $\frac{|S|}{|U|}$.

Example 8.8. Let U be the population of Switzerland and S the set of people that have the flu.

We can't compute this directly, so we sample k elements from U and count how many of them are in S .

Algorithm 8.9

```

1 Choose  $u_1 \dots u_n$  independently and uniformly at random from  $U$ 
2 Return  $1/n * |\{u_i \text{ in } S\}|$ 

```

Let Y be the number of elements in S . We want to bound the approximation error $|Y - \frac{|S|}{|U|}|$. Observe that for every element u_i we have an independent bernoulli variable $Y_i \in \{0, 1\}$ such that $Y = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n Y_i$ and $P[Y_i = 1] = \frac{|S|}{|U|}$.

Theorem 8.10. Let $\delta, \epsilon \geq 0$ be given. If we choose $n \geq 3 \frac{|U|}{|S|} \frac{1}{\epsilon^2} \ln \frac{2}{\delta}$, then with probability at least $1 - \delta$ we have that Y is in

$$[(1 - \epsilon) \frac{|S|}{|U|}, (1 + \epsilon) \frac{|S|}{|U|}]$$

Proof. We show that the probability of being outside that intervall is less than δ .

$$\begin{aligned}
P \left[\left| Y - \frac{|S|}{|U|} \right| \geq \epsilon \frac{|S|}{|U|} \right] &= P[|Y - \mathbb{E}[Y]| \geq \epsilon \mathbb{E}[Y]] \\
&= P[|NY - \mathbb{E}[NY]| \geq n\epsilon \mathbb{E}[NY]]
\end{aligned}$$

Now observe that $NY = Y_1 + \dots + Y_n$ where Y_i are independent bernoulli variables with $P[Y_i = 1] = \frac{|S|}{|U|}$. Hence we can use chernoff bounds.

$$P[|NY - \mathbb{E}[NY]| \geq n\epsilon \mathbb{E}[NY]] \leq 2e^{-\frac{1}{3}\epsilon^2 \mathbb{E}[NY]} = 2e^{-\frac{1}{3}\epsilon^2 N \frac{|S|}{|U|}}$$

With our assumption of $N \geq 3 \frac{|U|}{|S|} \frac{1}{\epsilon^2} \ln \frac{2}{\delta}$ we get exactly:

$$P \left[\left| Y - \frac{|S|}{|U|} \right| \geq \epsilon \frac{|S|}{|U|} \right] \leq \delta$$

□

9 Randomized Algorithms

Definition 9.1. A *Randomized Algorithm* is an algorithm that instead of being a function $A(I)$ with input I is a function $A(I, R)$ With a source of randomness R .

Remark 9.2. Sources of randomness R can be random bits, random integers, etc. obtained from physical phenomena or pseudo-random number generators.

Definition 9.3. A *Monte Carlo Algorithm* is a randomized algorithm that is always fast, but the result is not always correct (with a certain probability).

Definition 9.4. A *Las Vegas Algorithm* is a randomized algorithm that always returns the correct result, but the running time might be large (with a certain probability).

Remark 9.5. If we consider the las vegas algorithm that returns ??? after a certain time limit T then we have a version of Las Vegas algorithm that always terminates with a bounded runtime T and can be convertet to both standard Las Vegas or Monte Carlo algorithms.

Remark 9.6. Observe that if we run the above algorithm until we get an actual result and not ???, we have a standard Las Vegas Algorithm. Further note that if we just return a random result when we get ???, we have a Monte Carlo Algorithm.

9.1 Reduction of Error probability

Theorem 9.7. Let A be a randomized algorithm which never returns a false result but might return ??? where

$$P[A(I) \text{ is correct}] \geq \epsilon$$

Then $\forall \delta > 0$ the algorithm A_δ , which calls A until we get a correct value or until we get $N = \epsilon^{-1} \ln(\delta^{-1})$ times ???, offers

$$P[A_\delta(I) \text{ is correct}] \geq 1 - \delta$$

Remark 9.8. To reduce the probability of error to a constant factor we only need a constant amount of extra iterations.

Important 9.9. Generally it is **not possible to reduce the probability of error for monte-carlo algorithm**, except for algorithms that only have **one sided error** or an **error probability of $< \frac{1}{2}$** .

Theorem 9.10. Let A be a randomized algorithm which always returns true or false where

$$P[A(I) \text{ true}] = 1, \text{ if } I \text{ is a true-instance}$$

$$P[A(I) \text{ false}] \geq \epsilon, \text{ if } I \text{ is a false-instance}$$

Then $\forall \delta > 0$ the algorithm A_δ , which calls A until we get false or until we get $N = \epsilon^{-1} \ln(\delta^{-1})$ times true, offers

$$P[A_\delta(I) \text{ is correct}] \geq 1 - \delta$$

Theorem 9.11. Let $\epsilon > 0$ and A a randomized algorithm, which always returns true or false with

$$P[A(I) \text{ is correct}] \geq \frac{1}{2} + \epsilon$$

Then $\forall \delta > 0$ the algorithm A_δ , which calls A $N = 4\epsilon^{-2} \ln(\delta^{-1})$ times and returns the majority answer, offers

$$P[A_\delta(I) \text{ is correct}] \geq 1 - \delta$$

9.2 Optimization problems

Remark 9.12. We assume we have an algorithm that always returns a valid solution but not necessarily an optimal one.

Example 9.13. We want to find an algorithm that finds a solution which is at least as good as the expected value of the solution of the given algorithm.

Theorem 9.14. Let $\epsilon > 0$ and A be a randomized algorithm for an optimization problem where

$$P[A(I) \geq f(I)] \geq \epsilon$$

then $\forall \delta > 0$ the algorithm A_δ , which calls A $N = \frac{1}{\epsilon^2} \ln(\delta^{-1})$ times and returns the

best solution found, offers

$$P[A_\delta(I) \geq f(I)] \geq 1 - \delta$$

9.3 Primality Testing

Definition 9.15. Primality Testing Problem: Given $n \in \mathbb{N}$, decide if n is prime (i.e., has no divisors in $\{2, \dots, n-1\}$). This is heavily used in cryptography (e.g. RSA) to generate large random prime numbers securely.

Remark 9.16. History of Primality Tests:

- **Sieve of Eratosthenes** (200BC): Finds all primes $\leq n$ (not polynomial time).
- **Miller-Rabin** (1976): Monte-Carlo algorithm with one-sided error (always correct for primes).
- **Solovay-Strassen** (1977): Alternative Monte-Carlo algorithm.
- **Adleman-Huang** (1987): Monte-Carlo algorithm, always correct for non-primes.
- **AKS** (Agrawal-Kayal-Saxena, 2002): First deterministic algorithm in polynomial time.

Algorithm 9.17

```
1 //Euclid Primality Test
2 Choose a [1...n-1] uniformly at random.
3 If ggT(a, n) = 1:
4     return "Prime"
5 else
6     return "Not Prime"
```

Remark 9.18. This is an extremely naive algorithm:

- If n is prime: Output is always correct.
- If n is not prime: False output "Prime" with probability $\frac{|Z_n^*|}{n-1} \approx 1 - \frac{1}{\sqrt{n}}$, which is unfortunately very high.

Proof. For a composite number n , the worst-case scenario (which maximizes the number of coprimes) occurs when $n = p^2$ for some prime p .

In this case, the number of coprimes is:

$$\varphi(n) = p(p-1) = n - \sqrt{n}$$

The probability of falsely picking an a that is coprime to n is therefore:

$$P(\text{False "Prime"}) = \frac{\varphi(n)}{n-1} \approx \frac{n - \sqrt{n}}{n} = 1 - \frac{1}{\sqrt{n}}$$

□

Definition 9.19. Euler's Totient Function $\varphi(n) = |Z_n^*|$: Number of integers in $\{1, \dots, n-1\}$ that are coprime to n . If n is prime, $\varphi(n) = n-1$.

Theorem 9.20. Theorem of Lagrange: If H is a subgroup of G , then $|H|$ divides $|G|$.

Fermat's Little Theorem: If n is prime, then for all $a \in \{1, \dots, n-1\}$, $a^{n-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}$.

Algorithm 9.21

```
1 \textbf{Fermat Test}: Choose  $a \in \{1, \dots, n-1\}$ 
    uniformly at random. If  $a^{n-1} \bmod n = 1$ , return “
    Prime”, else “Not Prime”.
```

Remark 9.22. • If n is prime: Output is always correct.

- If n is not prime: False output “Prime” with probability $\leq \frac{1}{2}$, unless n is a **Carmichael Number**.

Definition 9.23. A Carmichael Number is a composite number n where $a^{n-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}$ holds for all a coprime to n , causing the Fermat test to almost always improperly return “Prime” (e.g. $561 = 3 \times 11 \times 17$).

Proof. Let PB_n be the set of “false witnesses” (numbers that incorrectly pass the test):

$$PB_n = \{a \in Z_n^* \mid a^{n-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}\}$$

This set forms a subgroup of Z_n^* because it is closed under multiplication:

$$\text{If } a, b \in PB_n, \text{ then } (ab)^{n-1} = a^{n-1}b^{n-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}$$

By Lagrange's theorem, if n is not a Carmichael number (meaning $PB_n \neq Z_n^*$), then PB_n is a strict subgroup. The theorem states that its size $|PB_n|$ must cleanly divide the size of the parent group $|Z_n^*|$.

Because PB_n is a strict subgroup, the maximum possible size of this subgroup is exactly half the group:

$$|PB_n| \leq \frac{|Z_n^*|}{2} \leq \frac{n-1}{2}$$

Meaning at most half of the elements in the test space will incorrectly evaluate to true. □

Definition 9.24. Miller-Rabin Certificate: Let $n > 2$ be odd. Write $n - 1 = 2^k d$ with d odd. If n is prime and $a \in \{1, \dots, n - 1\}$, then either:

$$a^d \equiv 1 \pmod{n} \quad \text{or} \quad \exists i \in \{0, \dots, k - 1\} : a^{2^i d} \equiv n - 1 \pmod{n}$$

If this condition **fails**, a is a Miller-Rabin Certificate proving n is strictly not prime.

Algorithm 9.25

```

1      //Miller-Rabin Test
2      Choose a at random.
3      Check if the certificate condition holds.
```

Remark 9.26. • If n is prime: Output is always correct.

- If n is not prime: False output “Prime” with probability $\leq \frac{1}{4}$ (even for Carmichael numbers). This means repeating the test k times drops error probability to $\leq 4^{-k}$.

Proof. If n is prime, $\mathbb{Z}_n$ forms a mathematical field. In a field, the equation $x^2 = 1$ has exactly two roots (1 and -1):

$$x = 1 \quad \text{and} \quad x = -1 \equiv (n - 1) \pmod{n}$$

By Fermat’s little theorem $a^{n-1} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}$. We can rewrite this exponent using $n - 1 = 2^k d$ as:

$$a^{2^k d} \equiv 1 \pmod{n}$$

If we repeatedly take square roots of this value, the sequence must hit -1 before it hits 1, unless it was 1 from the very beginning ($a^d \equiv 1$). If the sequence does not follow this rule, the field properties are violated, and thus n cannot be prime.

While it rigorously holds that the false output probability is tightly bounded at $\leq \frac{1}{4}$, the full mathematical proof leverages the Chinese Remainder Theorem to show the non-witnesses form a strict subgroup bounded to one-quarter the size. $\square$

9.4 Sorting and Selecting

Theorem 9.27. The expected runtime of randomized quicksort is $O(n \log n)$ or more specifically

$$\mathbb{E}[T_{1,n}] \leq 2(n + 1) \ln(n) + O(n)$$

Proof. Let $T_{\ell,r}$ denote the (random) number of comparisons performed during a call to *QuickSort*(A, ℓ, r). We want to show that

$$E[T_{1,n}] \leq 2(n + 1) \ln n + O(n)$$

For $\ell \geq r$, $T_{\ell,r} = 0$. For $\ell < r$, using Theorem 2.32 and the linearity of expectation, we have

$$\begin{aligned} E(T_{\ell,r}) &= \sum_{i=\ell}^r \Pr[t = i] \cdot (r - \ell + E[T_{\ell,i-1}] + E[T_{i+1,r}]) \\ &= \frac{1}{r - \ell + 1} \cdot \sum_{i=0}^{r-\ell} (r - \ell + E[T_{\ell,\ell+i-1}] + E[T_{\ell+i+1,r}]) \end{aligned}$$

Here, we used the fact that t is uniformly distributed over $\{\ell, \dots, r\}$ —this follows directly from the assumption that the elements of A are distinct. Looking more closely at the recursion shown above, we see that the expected value $E[T_{\ell,r}]$ does not depend on r and ℓ individually, but only on the number of elements to be sorted, $n = r - \ell + 1$. This observation motivates the following recursive definition of the sequence t_n :

$$t_n = \begin{cases} 0, & \text{if } n \leq 1 \\ \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} (n - 1 + t_i + t_{n-i-1}), & \text{if } n \geq 2 \end{cases}$$

By induction on $r - \ell$, it is easy to see that for all ℓ, r , the equation $E[T_{\ell,r}] = t_{r-\ell+1}$ holds. In the following, we derive an upper bound for t_n . For all $n \geq 3$, by definition:

$$n \cdot t_n = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} (n - 1 + t_i + t_{n-i-1})$$

and similarly:

$$(n - 1) \cdot t_{n-1} = \sum_{i=0}^{n-2} (n - 2 + t_i + t_{n-i-2})$$

Subtracting the second equation from the first, we obtain:

$$n \cdot t_n - (n - 1) \cdot t_{n-1} = 2(n - 1) + 2t_{n-1}$$

and therefore:

$$t_n = \frac{n+1}{n} \cdot t_{n-1} + \frac{2(n-1)}{n} \leq \frac{n+1}{n} \cdot t_{n-1} + 2$$

We now use induction again (this time on n) to show that for all $n \geq 2$:

$$t_n \leq 2 \sum_{i=3}^{n+1} \frac{n+1}{i}$$

For $n = 2$, it follows from the definition of t_n that $t_2 = 1 \leq 2 = \sum_{i=3}^3 2$. For $n \geq 3$, we can use the inequality $t_n \leq \frac{n+1}{n} \cdot t_{n-1} + 2$ derived above along with the induction hypothesis to verify the validity of the inequality for all $n \geq 3$. Since $\sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{i} = H_n = \ln n + O(1)$, it follows in particular that:

$$E[T_{1,n}] = t_n \leq 2(n+1) \ln n + O(n)$$

□

Theorem 9.28. *The expected runtime of randomized quickselect is $O(n)$.*

Proof. When we execute $QuickSelect(A, 1, n, k)$, it results in a random number N of calls of the form $Partition(A, \ell_i, r_i, p)$ for a (likewise random) sequence

$$(\ell_0, r_0, k_0), (\ell_1, r_1, k_1), \dots, (\ell_N, r_N, k_N)$$

with $(\ell_0, r_0, k_0) = (1, n, k)$. In this process, either $(\ell_{i+1}, r_{i+1}) = (\ell_i, t-1)$ or $(\ell_{i+1}, r_{i+1}) = (t+1, r_i)$, where t is a random variable uniformly distributed on $\{\ell_i, \dots, r_i\}$ (because the elements of A are pairwise distinct). The runtime of a call to $QuickSelect(A, 1, n, k)$, measured by the number of comparisons of elements in A , is:

$$T = \sum_{i=0}^N (r_i - \ell_i)$$

because each call $Partition(A, \ell_i, r_i, p)$ requires exactly $r_i - \ell_i$ comparisons. We now define N_j as the number of calls to $QuickSelect$ for which $(3/4)^j n < r_i - \ell_i + 1 \leq (3/4)^{j-1} n$ holds. Then it certainly follows that:

$$T \leq \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} N_j \cdot (3/4)^{j-1} n$$

due to the linearity of expectation, we have:

$$E[T] \leq n \cdot \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} E[N_j] \cdot (3/4)^{j-1}$$

What can we say about $E[N_j]$? To determine this, we consider that the number of elements to be processed is reduced from $r_i - \ell_i + 1$ to at most $\frac{3}{4}(r_i - \ell_i + 1)$ whenever we choose one of the middle $\frac{1}{2}(r_i - \ell_i + 1)$ elements as the pivot. In other words: with every choice of a pivot element, there is a probability of at least $1/2$ that the number of elements is reduced by at least a factor of $3/4$. Therefore, $E[N_j] \leq 2$ for all $j \geq 1$, and thus:

$$E[T] \leq 2n \sum_{j=1}^{\infty} (3/4)^{j-1} = 2n \cdot \frac{1}{1 - 3/4} = 8n$$

The expected runtime of $QuickSelect(A, 1, n, k)$ is indeed linear, as claimed. $\square$

9.5 Duplicate Detection

Definition 9.29. *We are given a sequence of data-elements $A_i \in \Sigma^*$ where Σ is a set of size n . Determine if there are any duplicates in A .*

Remark 9.30. *We could sort the sequence in $O(n \log n)$ and check for duplicates in $O(n)$. But what if the data elements are too large to efficiently sort them?*

Algorithm 9.31

```
1 S = [A1, A2 ... An];
2 X = [(hash(A1), 1), (hash(A2), 2), ... (hash(An), n)];
3 Duplicates = [];
4 X.sortByHashValue();
5
6 for every block of elements with the same hash value do:
7     if block.size > 1:
8         For every pair (Ai, Aj) in block do:
9             if Ai.data == Aj.data:
10                 Duplicates.add((Ai.data, Aj.data));
11 return Duplicates;
```

Remark 9.32. Note that we have to check each pair in their block as our hash function guarantees that same data values receive same hash values but not necessarily uniquely.

Theorem 9.33. The expected number of actual data comparisons is $O(\#duplicates) + O(1)$.

Proof.

□

9.6 Floyd-Cycle Detection

Definition 9.34. Given an array $A[1, \dots, n]$ where $A[i] \in \{1, \dots, n\}$ find two indices $i \neq j$ such that $A[i] = A[j]$.

Remark 9.35. We want to solve this problem with $O(n)$ expected runtime and $O(1)$ extra space.

Remark 9.36. Idea: We can model this as a directed graph with nodes $1 \dots n$ and edges $i \rightarrow A[i]$.

Lemma 9.37. There exists a $t \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $X_t = X_{2t}$ if there are duplicates in A .

Proof. Assume there are duplicates in A hence there is a cycle in the graph. Let $r = \lfloor \frac{k}{l} \rfloor \cdot l - k \geq 0$ with l the length of a cycle and k the length of the path before the cycle starts (tail). Observe that $X_{k+r} = X_{2(k+r)}$ further

$$k + r = \lfloor \frac{k}{l} \rfloor l < (\frac{k}{l} + 1)l = k + l \leq n$$

Thus $t = k + r$ is an iteration index where the sequence repeats itself. Therefore if we find such t then $X_t = X_{2t}$ and the two corresponding array entries must be equal. $\square$

Algorithm 9.38

```

1  tortoise = A[n]
2  hare = A[A[n]]
3  t = 1
4
5  while tortoise != hare:
6      tortoise = A[tortoise]
7      hare = A[A[hare]]
8      t += 1
9
10 hare = n
11 while hare != tortoise:
12     i = hare;
13     j = tortoise;
14     hare = A[hare]
15     tortoise = A[tortoise]
16
17 return i, j

```

Remark 9.39. *Observe that this algorithm only uses $O(1)$ extra space.*

Lemma 9.40. *Let $t \leq n$ with $X_t = X_{2t}$ then $X_{t+k} = X_k$ holds for all $k \geq 0$.*

Proof. We know $X_t = X_{2t}$ and thus $2t = t + p * l$ for some $p \in \mathbb{N}$ hence $t = p * l$ holds and finally $X_{t+k} = X_{k+l*p} = X_k$ holds by induction. $\square$